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Work and/or Fun: Measuring Hedonic and Utilitarian Shopping Value

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Consumer researchers' growing interest in consumer experiences has revealed that many consumption activities produce both hedonic and utilitarian outcomes. Thus, there is an increasing need for scales to assess consumer perceptions of both hedonic and utilitarian values. This article describes the development of a scale measuring both values obtained from the pervasive consumption experience of shopping. The authors develop and validate the scale using a multistep process. The results demonstrate that distinct hedonic and utilitarian shopping value dimensions exist and are related to a number of important consumption variables. Implications for further applications of the scale are discussed.

Several recent consumer behavior studies focus on a "shopping as work" theme, providing accounts of distressed consumers experiencing the "dark side of shopping" (e.g., Fischer and Arnold 1990; Sherry, McGrath, and Levy 1993). Consumers in other studies however, depict "shopping's fun side" (e.g., Bloch and Bruce 1984; Hirschman 1984; Sherry 1990a). This contrast illustrates great diversity across consumers' evaluations of shopping experiences. As a result, traditional product-acquisition explanations may inadequately reflect the total value of a shopping experience (Bloch and Richins 1983a; Hirschman 1984). If we assume shopping trips are evaluated exclusively on the merit of any goods or services acquired, we fail to recognize numerous intangible and emotional costs and benefits that must be examined before we can understand this consumption activity fully (Holbrook 1986).

This article describes the development of a scale assessing consumers' evaluations of a shopping experience along two important dimensions: utilitarian and hedonic value. Given a growing recognition that shopping involves experiential as well as instrumental outcomes, there is a need to develop measures capturing this basic duality. Granted, a complete and detailed account of all values provided by a consumption experience may require additional dimensions (cf. Sheth, Newman, and Gross 1991). We focus on these two dimensions however, because they maintain a basic underlying presence across consumption phenomena (e.g., Batra and Ahtola 1991; Crowley, Spangenberg, and Hughes 1992; Engel, Blackwell, and Miniard 1993). In addition, we wish to develop an encompassing yet parsimonious scale.

Put simply, the personal shopping value scale presented here asks the consumer, "What was in it for you?" The scale recognizes formally that a shopping experience can be valuable, or valueless, in more than one way. The scale dimensions are reflected in accounts of shopping's "dark side" and "fun side." Additionally, an account of hedonic and utilitarian shopping outcomes may provide insight into many consumption behaviors (e.g., impulse purchasing, compulsive shopping, browsing) that are difficult to explain using only functional explanations.

THEORETICAL BACKGROUND

Value in Consumer Research

The search for a precise definition of "value" has proved an enduring endeavor for a wide range of philosophers and researchers (Dodds and Monroe 1985; Mandler 1982; Perry 1926; Sewall 1901; Zeithaml 1988). A review of this literature reflects its multifaceted nature. Several authors, for instance, have concluded that value conceptualizations may vary depending on

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a study's context (Dodds, Monroe, and Grewal 1991; Holbrook and Corfman 1985).

Zeithaml (1988) reviews this literature extensively and identifies four common uses of the term. One definition simply equates value with price: "Value is price" (p. 13). Interestingly, early philosophers (prior to the sixteenth century) also viewed value and price isomorphically (Sewall 1901). Two other conceptualizations highlight value's key role in the exchange process by representing the trade-off between costs and benefits. One simply considers value as "what I get for what I give" (Zeithaml 1988, p. 13). The other is more specific, expressing value as a trade-off between perceived product quality and price. This value operationalization is applied commonly in price-quality studies predicting eventual product choice (e.g., Rao and Monroe 1989). In this form, value generally takes the role of an important intervening variable—caused directly by consumer perceptions of quality, sacrifice, and a product's intrinsic and extrinsic attributes and resulting in product choice (Dodds and Monroe 1985; Dodds et al. 1991). A fourth definition equates value with an overall assessment of subjective worth considering all relevant evaluative criteria. Here, value is "all factors, both qualitative and quantitative, subjective and objective, that make up the complete shopping experience" (Schechter 1984; cited in Zeithaml 1988, p. 13). This definition recognizes explicitly value's subjective nature. Here, value is provided by the "complete shopping experience," not simply by product acquisition.

Any of these definitions may be appropriate in a particular context. However, a strictly objective approach, focusing on an object, its price, or the functional utility provided by that object, may be too narrow to account for all value provided by consumption experiences (Hirschman and Holbrook 1982). Shopping, for example, has been singled out as providing *both* task-related, or product-acquisition (Bloch and Richins 1983a), *and* hedonic value through responses evoked during the experience (Bloch and Bruce 1984). Thus, a shopping value measure should account for more than just functional utility (Bloch, Sherrell, and Ridgway 1986).

In this study, we consider value from this experiential perspective, recognizing that it is related intimately to hedonic responses as well as other more tangible consequences (Holbrook and Corfman 1985). Value in this form is considered the *key outcome variable* in a general model of consumption experiences (Holbrook 1986). Value is "an interactive relativistic preference experience . . . characterizing a subject's experience of interacting with some object. The object may be any thing or event" (Holbrook and Corfman 1985, p. 40). Thus, both an event's usefulness and an appreciation of activities comprising it can indicate value. A shopping experience could evoke value either through successfully accomplishing its intended goal (e.g., obtaining the Christmas gift for Uncle Ed) or by providing enjoyment and/or fun (e.g., the thrill of a "Blue-Light Special"). A more detailed look at both value dimensions in a shopping context follows.

Two Types of Shopping Value

A general view of value recognizing both (1) a utilitarian outcome resulting from some type of conscious pursuit of an intended consequence and (2) an outcome related more to spontaneous hedonic responses captures a basic duality of rewards for much human behavior. It reflects the distinction between performing an act "to get something" as opposed to doing it because "you love it" (Triandis 1977). For example, people can gain extrinsic rewards (monetary awards, prizes, etc.) from participation in competitive events, but they can also gain a more intrinsic, personal, and emotional reward from competitively derived pleasure (Deci et al. 1981). This view does not preclude participation in these activities by those who do not find competition pleasurable. However, it does suggest that these people may participate in competitive behaviors only for utilitarian value.

As with other behaviors, these two types of value are useful in describing shopping's rewards. Several authors acknowledge that shopping experiences can indeed produce both utilitarian and hedonic value (e.g., Belk 1987; Fischer and Arnold 1990; Sherry 1990a). Sherry (1990b, p. 180) captures this theme when describing consumers' apparent "oscillation . . . between *homo economicus* and *homo ludens*." Thus, measures accounting for both utilitarian and hedonic shopping value are needed (Holbrook and Hirschman 1982).

Utilitarian Value[1]

The majority of attention in previous research has focused on shopping's utilitarian aspects (Bloch and

[1]Our use of the term "utilitarian" in consumer research is linguistically distinct from its usage by others, including some early thinkers. For example, Jerremy Bentham's notion of utilitarianism is equated quite closely with modern notions of hedonism. To Bentham, utilitarianism entailed conducting behavior so as to achieve immediate pleasure and avoid immediate pain. The only concern with consequences or usefulness of behavior was with respect to the greatest happiness for the greatest number (Vaughan 1982). Likewise, John Stuart Mill's utilitarianism also reflects a hedonic component and in general equates utility with happiness. Mill moves beyond Bentham, though, in considering the usefulness of some object or behavior to satisfy needs other than those related to immediate pleasure and/or avoidance of pain. "Those who know anything about the matter are aware that every writer . . . who maintained the theory of utility, meant by it, not something to be contradistinguished from pleasure—but pleasure itself, together with exemption from pain" (Mill 1910, p. 2). However, Mill's work is distinguished by acknowledging that some things have utility only from the standpoint of being instrumental in providing future satisfactions and that some pain might need to be endured in this sense. "[Things] can be proved to be good . . . by being shown to be a means to something admitted to be good" (Mill 1910, p. 4). This distinction appeared especially relevant in explaining why behavior related to "higher appetites" (e.g., education and safety) is performed. In this sense, utilitarianism reflects much of both hedonic and utilitarian dimensions of consumer behavior as discussed by numerous consumer researchers noted below.

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Bruce 1984). Utilitarian consumer behavior has been described as ergic, task-related, and rational (Batra and Ahtola 1991; Engel et al. 1993; Sherry 1990b). Perceived utilitarian shopping value might depend on whether the particular consumption need stimulating the shopping trip was accomplished. Often, this means a product is purchased in a deliberant and efficient manner.

Utilitarian value, reflecting shopping with a work mentality (Hirschman and Holbrook 1982), may be useful in explaining the "dark side of shopping" alluded to earlier. For example, utilitarian value may help explain why consumers viewing Christmas shopping as "women's work" go through what they feel is an arduous process. Fischer and Arnold (1990) give a typical example of this type of shopping. Referring to Christmas shopping lists, a consumer proclaims, "I found it sort of a chore this year trying to get everything done" (p. 334). This shopper may find value only if the shopping chore is completed successfully (get everything done) and, even better, if done in a fastidious manner. Similarly, two focus group respondents in our research discussed "successful" and "unsuccessful shopping trips" as,

> I like to get in and out with a minimum amount of time wasted . . . I get irritated when I can't find what is needed . . . and I have to go to another store to find it.
>
> To me, shopping is like a mission, and if I find what I'm looking for, I'm satisfied—mission accomplished!

It is also conceivable that a purchase is not a necessary precursor of utilitarian shopping value. For example, utilitarian value may result from a situationally involved consumer collecting information out of necessity rather than recreation (Bloch and Richins 1983b). A male focus group respondent expressed this possibility:

> Even though I may not purchase [the intended item], I could get some ideas and prices on some possibilities . . . and it would not have been a waste of time.

Additional respondents in our focus groups and other sources (e.g., Sherry 1990a; Thompson, Locander, and Pollio 1990) describe certain shopping trips with terms commonly used to evaluate work performance (i.e., success, accomplishment, relief). Therefore, utilitarian value may be most relevant in explaining shopping trips described by consumers as "an errand" or "work" where they are happy simply to "get through it all."

Hedonic Value

Compared to shopping's utilitarian aspects, its "festive," ludic, or epicurean side has been studied less often (Sherry 1990a). Hedonic value is more subjective and personal than its utilitarian counterpart and results more from fun and playfulness than from task completion (Holbrook and Hirschman 1982). Thus, hedonic shopping value reflects shopping's potential entertainment and emotional worth (Bellenger, Steinberg, and Stanton 1976). Here "the purchase of goods may be incidental to the experience of shopping. People buy so they can shop, not shop so they can buy" (Langrehr 1991, p. 428). In this sense, hedonically rewarding shopping experiences are not akin to a negative sense of "work."

Increased arousal, heightened involvement, perceived freedom, fantasy fulfillment, and escapism all may indicate a hedonically valuable shopping experience (Bloch and Richins 1983b; Hirschman 1983). Furthermore, vicarious consumption can provide hedonic value by allowing a consumer to enjoy a product's benefits without purchasing it (MacInnis and Price 1987). Certainly perceived enjoyment itself is an important "hedonic benefit" provided through shopping activities (Bloch et al. 1986). In fact, recreational shoppers likely expect high levels of hedonic value. In sum, shopping, with or without purchasing, can provide hedonic value in many ways (Markin, Lillis, and Narayana 1976).

Participants in qualitative research have expressed statements consistent with hedonic value's potential indicators. For example, in stark contrast to the "work-oriented" Christmas shoppers discussed previously, consumers have described themselves as "a kid in a candy store," loving to shop for toys "because of the little kid in me," and delighted over becoming immersed in a store "that wasn't a run of the mill kind of store" (Fischer and Arnold 1990, p. 334). A focus group respondent in our study expressed succinctly shopping's escapist benefits: "I enjoy shopping when it helps me forget my problems." Describing these aspects of shopping, Sherry (1990a) concludes that "the seeking of such experience is often far more significant than the mere acquisition of products" (p. 27). Another focus group participant echoed these sentiments when describing a shopping trip during which she failed to make the intended purchase:

> I enjoy looking around and imagining what one day I would actually have money to buy. Shopping . . . is an adventure. When you can't or don't find [what you're after] it's o.k. because there are lots of other places to look.

In sum, "these individuals appear to derive their gratification from immediate hedonic pleasure" (Fischer and Arnold 1990, p. 334).

In other situations, the actual purchase act can produce hedonic value and may serve as the climax of the buying process. In these instances, product acquisitions are not what they may appear to be and can be driven by something other than tangible product attributes. Impulse purchases, for example, result more from a *need to purchase* than a *need for a product* (Rook 1987). Compulsive shoppers, likewise, gain intrinsic value from the act of purchasing itself (Faber and O'Guinn 1989). A form of hedonic value with less serious consequences results from purchases made by product enthusiasts (Bloch and Bruce 1984). Quite often, product enthusiasts acquire items for hedonic responses asso-

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ciated with self-concept enhancement rather than for any utilitarian benefits.

Consumers may also receive hedonic value through bargain perceptions. The price-quality literature portrays value as a function of a product's transaction utility, the difference between a product's selling price and a consumer's internal reference price (Monroe and Chapman 1987; Thaler 1985). The hedonic responses associated with bargain perceptions, however, extend beyond an additive measure of transaction utility (Schindler 1989). One shopper, anticipating a visit to a flea market, expressed this:

> There's a sense of excitement with lots of people being there . . . You just know you're going to get a real bargain . . . it's going to be cheap. [Sherry 1990a, p. 23]

In our study, a middle-aged male focus group respondent captured the actual product's insignificance compared to the excitement of finding a bargain. He accounted for his closet full of unused "cheap stuff" as follows:

> I like to hunt through the stuff for bargains. When you find something really cheap it's great because it makes me feel like I'm stealing something.

Thus, "bargains" can provide increased sensory involvement and excitement among consumers.

Dimensional Relation

Hypothesizing the strength and direction of the relationship between hedonic and utilitarian value requires consideration of several factors. Some examples provided above show how shopping—like other consumption experiences—may provide both hedonic and utilitarian value. For example, a consumer might find the product that motivated the shopping trip at an exceptionally low price at the first store visited, creating both types of value. Utilitarian value is present because the product acquisition is completed easily; hedonic value comes from bargain-related hedonic responses.

In other instances, elements of one value type may inhibit the other. For example, factors associated with increased hedonic value, such as heightened affect, may interfere with task performance and result in low utilitarian value (Eroglu and Harrell 1986). A female respondent in previous research illustrates this point:

> They weren't the wrong size, but they were high heels, and I don't wear a lot of high heels, and it was just a bad decision on my part. I get caught up in those sales sometimes. [Thompson et al. 1990, p. 354]

Conversely, a work mentality might distract from what would ordinarily be an enjoyable experience. For instance, gift-shopping is less enjoyable among consumers looking for an item specifically requested by its recipient (Belk 1979). Gender differences and situational factors may also influence perceived shopping value. As an example, many women perceive Christmas shopping as a "drudgery," while men often enjoy it because they feel less pressure to buy exactly the "right" gift (Fischer and Arnold 1990). Even if both parties are successful in purchasing a gift, women might be expected to report relatively lower levels of hedonic value. However, hedonic value might be increased when these consumers are not under the pressure of "Christmas working."

Hedonic responses can also be therapeutic. Benevolent activity, for example, can produce a hedonic reward through self-gratification that is useful in mood management (Baumann, Cialdini, and Kenrick 1981). Therefore, an altruistic act can provide value over and above any tangible consequences by alleviating a negative mood (Cialdini, Darby, and Vincent 1973). One consumer expressed similar thoughts about shopping:

> It's a high. It occurred to me that if I get depressed, then I want to go shopping. It's too bad it's expensive. It's a thrill. It gives you a lift to buy something fun. [Thompson et al. 1990, p. 357]

In one of our interviews a female consumer noted similarly:

> I really don't care how much money I have to spend. It's always a pick-me-up to see all the kinds of things each store has. It's even better to enjoy something that's productive.

These sentiments express shopping's "escapist" potential, an element of hedonic value. In fact, hedonic responses gleaned from shopping activities may sometimes be an intended goal (as opposed to product acquisition as a goal). Thus, *shopping with a goal* can be distinguished from *shopping as a goal.* However, since enjoying the experience is the desired end, and not happenstance, some utilitarian value might be reflected as well. That is, the consumer may sense that the "task" of improving his/her mood has been accomplished.

The fact that work and fun are not opposed diametrically may influence the relationship between hedonic and utilitarian shopping value. A middle-aged female respondent discussing Christmas shopping expressed this theme:

> Christmas gift buying is work, but even work can be a pleasant experience. Just seeing a larger experience softens the job context of Christmas shopping.

Even though shopping can be viewed as work, "they [consumers] might enjoy it and find it somewhat rewarding" (Fischer and Arnold 1990, p. 334).

This wide range of considerations and contexts makes predicting a relationship between the two dimensions somewhat difficult. It appears clear, however, that these are two distinct dimensions and that a high (low) level on one does not preclude a high (low) level on the other (Triandis 1977). At the same time, any correlation between the factors is likely to be modest. Considering the weight of evidence provided above and exhibited

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in qualitative research, we expect a modest degree of positive association.

SCALE DEVELOPMENT PROCEDURES

The theoretical evidence presented above supports the existence of two distinct dimensions of personal shopping value. The next section describes the process used to establish the content of each dimension and to validate the scale psychometrically and theoretically. The procedure employed is based on accepted methods of scale development in consumer research (Churchill 1979) and incorporates recent advancements in the evaluation of multi-item measures (Gerbing and Anderson 1988). We intend to develop a useful and practical scale, one that is parsimonious and applied easily.

Development of Initial Set of Scale Items

Through a review of a large base of relevant literature, preliminary scale items were identified. Two focus group interviews were then conducted to fully specify personal shopping value's content area. Focus group members consisted of a convenience sample from a university community. The first group consisted of two male and four female respondents whose ages ranged from 20 to 55 years. Five female and three male respondents participated in the second focus group with ages ranging from 20 to 40 years. Each sample was diverse in both educational and occupational backgrounds.[2]

Focus group sessions began with participants listing activities s/he would do if provided some unexpected free time. Moderators probed respondents with respect to how they would evaluate an activity's worth on its completion. Noting that several respondents specified shopping as an activity they would engage in, a discussion began centering on how shopping activities were evaluated. In other words, what makes a shopping trip particularly successful or unsuccessful, enjoyable or unenjoyable? After some discussion, a further distinction was made between shopping because "you have to as opposed to wanting to." A wide range of responses (some alluded to earlier) were gathered over the course of the discussion. Responses ranged from expression of escapism (e.g., "I enjoy shopping because it helps me forget my problems") and fantasizing (e.g., "I like to fantasize about having new things that I can't afford on my salary"), to more functionally oriented statements (e.g., "I like to get in and out with a minimum amount of time wasted" and "I get irritated when I can't find what is needed . . . and I have to go to another store to find it").

In all, 71 scale items were generated from the literature review and focus groups. Three professional colleagues evaluated the items for representativeness of the scale domain. Each judge was given a description of both utilitarian and hedonic value and asked to sort the items into three groups (hedonic, utilitarian, and other). Any item classified as representative of either hedonic or utilitarian value by all three judges (48) was kept for further analysis. Five items agreed on by two judges were retained following a discussion among the judges. Thus, 53 items were retained for psychometric analyses.

[2]Additional personal interviews were conducted but not reported here as the results were consistent with the findings of these focus group interviews.

Initial Scale Development

Initial quantitative analyses were conducted to purify the measures and provide an initial examination of the scale's psychometric properties. Respondents were 125 undergraduate students at a large midwestern university. Each provided a written description of a recent shopping trip (one paragraph) prior to being administered the 53 shopping value items. The main objective of the description was to refresh the respondents' memory before proceeding to the scale items. Each item was then rated on a five-point Likert scale.

Dimensionality and Item Reduction. The 53 scale items were analyzed with principal component analysis to examine their dimensionality. The first two factors accounted for 21 and 14 percent of the total variance, respectively, while no additional factor accounted for more than 6 percent. Accordingly, the scree plot displayed an elbow in the amount of variance explained by these two factors.

The initial principal components solution was rotated using an oblique technique to examine the factor structure more closely. Table 1 presents factor loadings and item-total correlations from this analysis. Thirteen items hypothesized to represent hedonic value loaded highly (.57–.84) on the first rotated factor, and seven items hypothesized to represent utilitarian value loaded highly on the second factor (.53–.74). Remaining items failed to load highly on the first two factors, and remaining factors failed to account for substantial variation in the data. Thus, only the 20 items comprising the first two factors were retained for further analyses.

Confirmatory Factor Analysis. A series of confirmatory factor analyses was conducted to examine the scale's psychometric properties more closely (Bearden, Netemeyer, and Teel 1989). An initial maximum likelihood factor analysis, representing the 20 items described above in two dimensions, revealed five items with low squared multiple correlations (individual item reliabilities). These items were deleted. A second confirmatory factor analysis, estimated using the remaining 15 items in two dimensions, produced a chi-square of 128.3 ($df = 89, p < .01$), a goodness-of-fit statistic (GFI) of .87, and a root-mean-squared residual (RMSR) of .07. Further, the normed fit index (NFI = .95) and comparative fit index (CFI = .96) indicate a significant

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TABLE 1

INITIAL SCALE DEVELOPMENT RESULTS (EXPLORATORY FACTOR STRUCTURE: OBLIQUE ROTATION)

Scale and item	Loading: Hedonic	Loading: Utilitarian	Item-total correlation
Hedonic:			
This shopping trip was truly a joy.	.84		.86
Compared to other things I could have done, the time spent shopping was truly enjoyable.	.73		.81
During the trip, I felt the excitement of the hunt.	.70		.69
This shopping trip truly felt like an escape.	.73		.66
I enjoyed being immersed in exciting new products.	.66		.71
I enjoyed this shopping trip for its own sake, not just for the items I may have purchased.	.76		.80
I continued to shop, not because I had to, but because I wanted to.	.72		.72
I had a good time because I was able to act on the "spur of the moment."	.69		.66
While shopping, I was able to forget my problems.	.62		.60
While shopping, I felt a sense of adventure.	.68		.76
This shopping trip was not a very nice time out.	−.71		−.75
I felt really unlucky during this trip.	−.63		−.67
I was able to do a lot of fantasizing during this trip.	.57		.54
Utilitarian:			
I accomplished just what I wanted to on this shopping trip.		.58	.68
I couldn't buy what I really needed.		−.74	−.59
While shopping, I found just the item(s) I was looking for.		.61	.64
I was disappointed because I had to go to another store(s) to complete my shopping.		−.61	−.60
I feel this shopping trip was successful.		.55	.55
I feel really smart about this shopping trip.	.44	.57	.61
This was a good store visit because it was over very quickly.		−.53	−.69

improvement in fit compared to a null model (Bentler 1990), and a two-factor solution represents a significant improvement in fit compared to a one-factor solution ($\chi^2_{diff} = 141.9$, 1 *df*, $p < .001$). In addition, the *t*-value for each loading estimate is significant ($p < .001$).

Discrimination in a two-factor solution is also evident. First, the ϕ coefficient representing interfactor correlation is a modest .25. Second, as a test of discriminant validity (Fornell and Larcker 1981), the variance extracted in each factor (.58 and .54) exceeds clearly the square of the estimated correlation between the two factors (.063). Finally, each factor displays acceptable reliability levels ($\alpha = .94$ and .80 for hedonic and utilitarian value, respectively).

Convergent Validity. Further investigation of scale convergence was carried out. First, two judges independently content analyzed respondent descriptions of the shopping trip. After receiving a description of each dimension, judges rated the written shopping trip descriptions on a three-point scale (low, average, or high) with respect to its utilitarian and hedonic value content. This procedure resulted in a high degree of interjudge agreement. Judges displayed exact agreement across 82 percent (96 of 117) of the hedonic value ratings. In only three cases were the two judges completely disparate. Similarly, the judges rated the descriptions identically 81 percent (96 of 118) of the time with respect to utilitarian content with only two cases judged conversely. Disagreements were resolved by a third, independent judge. Eight of the descriptions did not contain enough information to be rated for hedonic value, and seven lacked sufficient information to be rated for utilitarian value.

Separate single-factor ANOVA models were estimated with respondents' summed factor scores as dependent variables and judges' ratings as treatment levels.[3] The first model revealed a significant effect of the hedonic classification on hedonic value ($F(2,115) = 4.42$, $p < .02$; $R^2 = .07$), with the means ranging from 33.0 for the "low" classification to 38.9 for the "high" group. Similarly, the second ANOVA model displayed a significant effect of the rating treatment on utilitarian value ($F(2,116) = 7.78$, $p < .01$; $R^2 = .12$). Again, the means are in the expected order ranging from 9.8 for the "low" group to 12.7 for the "high" group. Thus, there appears to be consistency between judges' evaluations of both hedonic and utilitarian value based on open-ended respondent descriptions and self-report scale values.

Discussion. Initial results provide an indication of the scale's psychometric properties. From the original inventory, the two factors explaining the largest portions of variance consisted of items representing hedonic (factor 1) and utilitarian (factor 2) value. Items not correlating highly with either factor were eliminated. The scale displays acceptable reliability and exhibits discriminant and convergent validity as detailed in the

[3]The multivariate *F* using the hedonic classification as a predictor of both dependent variables is 5.28(4,216) ($p < .0004$) based on Wilks's lambda. The corresponding *F*-value using the utilitarian classification is 8.07(4,216) ($p < .0001$).

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measurement literature (Anderson and Gerbing 1988).[4] Although these results provide evidence of construct validity, they must be viewed with caution as the scale was tested using a student sample and no attempt was made to validate the scale against other measures. Another study was conducted to validate and extend these results using a more diverse sample.

Scale Validation

This additional study was undertaken to (1) validate the scale using a separate sample, (2) further assess its psychometric properties, and (3) validate it against other measures with which it can be linked theoretically. The data for this analysis were obtained from 440 adult residents of a large midwestern community following the procedure set forth by Feild (1976). First, students were trained in how to conduct interviews. Next, the students were instructed to select potential respondents representative of a regional shopping mall's demographic profile. Student interviewers then contacted potential respondents and asked them to participate in a study concerning local retail stores. Respondents were informed that the students were receiving course credit for the interviews. Over the next 10 weeks, the interviewers individually accompanied each respondent on a shopping trip to one of the anchor stores in a local regional mall. This approach allowed us to measure more variables than would a more traditional data collection approach (i.e., mall intercept, mail survey, etc.).

Respondents were administered several measures that could be linked nomologically to personal shopping value. On agreeing to participate in the study, each respondent filled out a short self-administered survey that contained measures of his/her experiential shopping motivations (Attaway 1989; Darden and Reynolds 1971) and compulsive spending tendencies (Faber and O'Guinn 1989), as well as several demographic measures. During the store visit, after at least five minutes had passed but before leaving the store, students administered a modified version of Mehrabian and Russell's (1974) P-A-D (Pleasure-Arousal-Dominance) scale to assess in-store emotions and a single-item measure reflecting consumer perceptions of the number of "bargains" available in the store. In addition, students recorded each respondent's purchase behavior, administered a "yes or no" question based on whether the respondent purchased what was originally intended, queried him/her with respect to the amount of planned versus unplanned purchases, and administered a three-item scale assessing time pressure. Three days after the shopping trip, interviewers telephoned respondents and administered the personal shopping value items and a single item overall satisfaction measure. Graduate-level supervisors contacted randomly selected respondents to verify the information provided by student interviewers. The verification process provided no reason to question the data's authenticity or accuracy.

This approach to data collection has advantages and limitations. For example, student interviewers accompanying respondents may create a situation more similar to group shopping than shopping alone. Interviewers, however, allowed respondents to go about their shopping as naturally as possible. The time delay between administration of various measures is advantageous because it attenuates any potential procedural demand characteristics. Of 440 respondents participating originally, 36 were eliminated from the final sample due to attrition and/or incomplete responses.

Confirmatory Factor Analysis Results. Responses to the remaining items were submitted to confirmatory factor analysis. Table 2 summarizes the results. The chi-square residual resulting from this analysis is 315 ($df = 89$, $p < .001$), yielding a GFI of .90, an RMSR of .05, and an NFI and CFI of .94 each. These statistics indicate a reasonable fit to the data considering a sample size of over 400 respondents (Carmines and McIver 1981). As in earlier analyses, the modest ϕ coefficient of .16 provides evidence of discriminant validity when compared to the average variance extracted in each factor (.55 and .50). Each loading estimate is highly significant ($p < .001$), and both scales display acceptable reliability ($\alpha = .93$ and .80 for hedonic and utilitarian value, respectively). The results provide additional evidence of the scale's convergent and discriminant validity (Anderson and Gerbing 1988).

Correlation with Other Measures. Nomological validity was tested by correlating scale responses with other relevant measures. Based on prior theory, we expected a number of individual difference characteristics and situational factors to relate to hedonic and/or utilitarian shopping value. Correlation estimates representing these relationships are summarized in Table 3.

First, consumers' general shopping motivations vary individually (Tauber 1972). While some are much more oriented toward shopping as a task (pure product acquisition), others are more oriented toward the activity itself, along with the increased sensory involvement and emotional payoff provided. Consumers scoring highly on the motivation scale used here are typified as high in experiential motivations for shopping, while consumers with low scores might be considered "apathetic" shoppers (Attaway 1989; Darden and Reynolds 1971). These enduring shopping predispositions are likely to influence the value perceived from a single shopping episode. Consistent with this line of thought, a strong positive correlation ($\phi = .56$, $p < .001$) was found between respondents' experiential shopping motivations and the amount of hedonic value experienced during the shopping trip.

[4]The use of the different forms of validity described here are based on the use of the terms by Anderson and Gerbing (1988) and not meant to imply a multitrait-multimethod analysis.

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TABLE 2

PERSONAL SHOPPING VALUE SCALE CONFIRMATORY FACTOR ANALYSIS RESULTS

Item	Factor loadings: Hedonic	Factor loadings: Utilitarian	Item-total correlation
Hedonic:			
1. This shopping trip was truly a joy.	.81		.78
2. I continued to shop, not because I had to, but because I wanted to.	.69		.67
3. This shopping trip truly felt like an escape.	.76		.73
4. Compared to other things I could have done, the time spent shopping was truly enjoyable.	.83		.80
5. I enjoyed being immersed *in exciting new products.*	*.77*		*.70*
6. I enjoyed this shopping trip for its own sake, not just for the items I may have purchased.	.71		.68
7. I had a good time because I was able to act on the "spur-of-the-moment."	.69		.67
8. During the trip, I felt the excitement of the hunt.	.76		.74
9. While shopping, I was able to forget my problems.	.71		.69
10. While shopping, I felt a sense of adventure.	.73		.71
11. This shopping trip was not a very nice time out.	−.72		−.68
Utilitarian:			
12. I accomplished just what I wanted to on this shopping trip.		.80	.66
13. I couldn't buy what I really needed.		−.66	−.57
14. While shopping, I found just the item(s) I was looking for.		.78	.64
15. I was disappointed because I had to go to another store(s) to complete my shopping.		−.56	−.54
Cronbach alpha	.93	.80	
Interfactor correlation			.16
Fit indices:			
χ^2	315		
df	89		
GFI	.90		
RMSR	.05		
Bentler's NFI	.94		

TABLE 3

CORRELATION ESTIMATES BETWEEN VALUE FACTORS AND OTHER VARIABLES

Scale	Number of items	α	Correlation estimate: Hedonic value	Correlation estimate: Utilitarian value
Experiential shopping motivations	8	.86	.56***	−.02
Compulsive buying scale	5	.76	.34***	−.08
Pleasure	6	.85	.47***	.31***
Arousal	5	.86	.61***	.26***
Bargain perceptions	1	. . .	.29***	.26***
Amount spent	1	. . .	.16**	.24***
Unplanned purchases	1	. . .	.18***	.09
Time pressure	3	.75	−.25***	−.23***
Overall satisfaction	1	. . .	.51***	.53***

NOTE.—Correlation estimates (ϕ) are corrected for attenuation due to measurement error.

** $p < .01$.

*** $p < .001$.

A second individual difference trait assesses each respondent's relative degree of compulsive spending tendencies. Compulsive consumers participate in many shopping activities despite having little or no physical need for a product (O'Guinn and Faber 1989). Instead, these individuals shop (and purchase) to enhance their emotional state. Compulsive shoppers may view product acquisition as unimportant compared to the "emotional lift" shopping provides (O'Guinn and Faber 1989, p. 153). The pattern of correlations between consumer compulsivity and personal shopping value is consistent with this position. While compulsiveness is related significantly to hedonic value ($\phi = .38$, $p < .001$), it is unrelated to utilitarian value ($\phi = -.08$, $p > .10$), which better reflects functional product acquisition. This finding indicates that consumers may use shopping as a form of therapy in managing their emotions. In the case of compulsive consumption, however, this therapy can quickly turn into a destructive behavior (Hirschman 1992).

Emotions associated with consumer activities may provide value directly (Bloch and Bruce 1984; Kotler 1974). In particular, emotions like pleasure and arousal are important components of intrinsically valuable time (Unger and Kernan 1983). It is obvious that pleasure and arousal should correlate highly with hedonic value. However, the effect of consumer emotions on utilitarian value is less clear. Some evidence suggests that pleasure can facilitate completion of functional product-acquisition *tasks* and thus increase utilitarian value. For example, subjects in a car-choice task who had pleasurable affect induced experimentally displayed increased efficiency compared to a control group (Isen 1987). Similarly, mild states of physiological arousal can improve consumers' information processing ability, increasing the chances of a successful shopping trip (Kroeber-Riel 1979). Conversely, negative affect, such as that associated with crowding, has been associated with lower levels of success in accomplishing product-acquisition tasks and could potentially decrease utilitarian value (Eroglu and Harrell 1986). Given the weight of this evidence, pleasure and arousal are expected to relate positively to utilitarian value. However, the magnitude of

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these correlations should be less than that between emotion and hedonic value.

The correlations between self-report emotion and value perceptions are consistent with this reasoning (see Table 3). Both pleasure ($\phi = .47$) and arousal ($\phi = .61$) are related positively and significantly ($p < .001$) to hedonic value. In addition, both pleasure ($\phi = .31$) and arousal ($\phi = .26$) correlate significantly with utilitarian value, although the magnitude of these estimates is substantially less than those associated with hedonic value. Relations between shopping value and emotion appear consistent with previously developed theory.

We also expect consumers' "bargain" perceptions to influence shopping value. As discussed previously, price discounts create "transaction utility" or "smart shopper feelings," which may increase hedonic value. In addition, price discounts could create utilitarian value by facilitating an efficient end to the product-acquisition task. Consistent with this reasoning, consumer "bargain" perceptions relate significantly to both hedonic value ($\phi = .29$, $p < .001$) and utilitarian value ($\phi = .26$, $p < .001$). If substantiated by future studies of price discounts and shopping value, these findings may indicate that the subjective emotional component of price promotions is at least as important as the more tangible component.

Each respondent provided information on two spending measures. First, the total amount of purchases was recorded. As mentioned in our focus group interviews, the purchase act itself can elicit either a hedonic response, for example, a self-reward that may be only remotely related to any further end, or a utilitarian response, arising from the shopping task's successful culmination. Conversely, if the consumer failed to make a purchase, we may observe low levels of utilitarian value since further shopping must ensue. Purchases, as anticipated, relate significantly to both the hedonic and utilitarian dimensions of perceived shopping value ($\phi = .16$, $p < .01$, and $\phi = .24$, $p < .001$, respectively). The second spending measure recorded respondents' total unplanned versus planned purchases. Rook (1987) notes that impulse purchases, a subset of unplanned purchases, lead more to hedonic responses than do other purchases and are less likely to fulfill a utilitarian need. As expected, a modest positive correlation estimate exists between unplanned purchases and hedonic value ($\phi = .18$, $p < .01$). However, had this measure been operationalized more precisely as "impulse" purchases, the degree of relation might have been considerably higher. Unplanned purchases and utilitarian value are not related significantly.

Time pressure may also affect perceived shopping value. We propose that as time pressure increases, diminished feelings of freedom and spontaneity experienced by the consumer will lead to lower hedonic value. In addition, consumers feeling increased time pressure may be more likely to make a decision they regret later (Hoch and Lowenstein 1991). Alternatively, a shopper facing time constraints simply may not have enough time to buy everything needed. Poor purchase decisions and unfulfilled tasks, in turn, will lead to lower perceptions of utilitarian value. Again, the correlation estimates are consistent with a priori expectations ($\phi = -.25$, $p < .001$, and $\phi = -.23$, $p < .001$, for hedonic and utilitarian value, respectively).

Finally, both the utilitarian and hedonic value obtained from a shopping experience should relate to consumer satisfaction. Table 3 indicates a strong degree of correlation between a single-item index of satisfaction with the shopping trip and perceptions of hedonic and utilitarian value ($\phi = .51$, $p < .001$, and $\phi = .53$, $p < .001$, respectively).

Fulfilling Original Intentions. Fulfilling product-acquisition intentions is expected to increase utilitarian value. Respondents indicating that they had made the originally intended purchase(s) should generally experience higher levels of utilitarian value than those who did not. To examine this possibility, a one-way ANOVA model was tested using respondents' yes or no responses as to whether s/he had purchased the originally sought-after item as a predictor. The results support this reasoning ($F = 23.86$, $p < .0001$; $R^2 = .057$). Respondents answering "yes" report an average level of utilitarian value of 15.5 ($n = 203$) compared to 13.7 ($n = 193$) for those who answered "no." In contrast, planned product acquisition appears unrelated to hedonic value ($F = .94$).[5] Thus, both dimensions react as expected.

Summary

The results from this sample further validate the personal shopping value scale. First, we employed a more diverse sample than in the earlier analysis. Second, although a different sample and means of data collection were used, confirmatory factor analysis indicates that the structure resulting from previous scale purification fits the data quite well. The various fit indices and a moderate degree of intercorrelation between the two dimensions provide evidence of the scale's construct validity. Further, correlation estimates between each scale dimension and other theoretically related variables support the scale's nomological validity, yet are not so high as to question discriminant validity between each value dimension and these other measures (Bearden et al. 1989).[6]

[5]The multivariate $F(2,393)$ predicting both hedonic and utilitarian value is 13.46 ($p < .0001$) based on Wilks's lambda.

[6]An additional data collection effort was undertaken to investigate the validity of the scale for assessing hedonic and utilitarian shopping value immediately after a specific shopping experience as opposed to using the approach taken in the second study. Consumers at a major midwestern regional mall were intercepted on exiting the mall and asked to fill out a brief self-report survey instrument containing the scale items as applied to their activity while in the mall. A total of 485 useable responses were obtained in this manner. Responses to

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GENERAL DISCUSSION

This article describes the development of a practical two-dimensional scale of perceived personal shopping value. The scale recognizes that consumer value is indicated in both utilitarian and hedonic terms. The consumer is portrayed, in a shopping context, as both intellectual and emotional. This approach acknowledges that not all consumer behavior is directed toward satisfying some functional, physical, or economic need.

Initial scale items were developed through a literature review and through qualitative research. The purification process identified 15 items best representing distinct hedonic and utilitarian shopping value dimensions. These factors exhibited reliability and construct validity across differing samples and situations. Confirmatory factor analysis demonstrates the stability of the factor solution across multiple samples. In addition, the nomological validity of hedonic and utilitarian shopping value is supported by its correspondence with a number of theoretically related individual difference characteristics, behavioral measures, and situational factors.

Areas of Application

Traditionally, consumer behavior studies have focused on information processing or expectancy-value models characterizing consumer shopping as computer-like. However, models are beginning to evolve into more realistic representations of consumption *experiences,* accounting for consumers' hedonic and emotional sides in addition to any rational brand or store choice decisions (Holbrook 1986). This evolution emphasizes the need for outcome measures capturing this basic value distinction. The personal shopping value (PSV) scale could prove an integral part of a consciousness-emotion-value (C-E-V) model of consumer shopping experiences (Holbrook 1986), as the scale adequately represents consumer perceptions of both intrinsic (hedonic) and extrinsic (utilitarian) shopping value.

While it is beyond the scope of this article to develop specific hypotheses, the scale should prove useful in developing and testing consumer behavior theory in a number of additional areas. Most obviously, as this conceptualization connotes preference (Holbrook and Corfman 1985), utilizing both value dimensions may better explain general consumer choice. Hedonic and utilitarian values are likely important outcome variables influencing future consumer decisions through feedback loops into consumer decision processes as represented by retail patronage (e.g., Monroe and Guiltinan 1975) and brand choice models (e.g., Engel et al. 1993).

In addition, value assessed by the scale is quite likely to influence evaluations of products purchased or considered while shopping. Of particular interest is if and how hedonic shopping value transfers to later consumption experiences involving products purchased at that time. Further, given that bargain perceptions relate to both dimensions of shopping value, the measures may add additional explanatory power to traditional product-choice studies. For example, does hedonic shopping value influence consumer perceptions of price, quality, price-quality relationships, and satisfaction? Is hedonic shopping value reflected in prices consumers are willing to pay?

The scale may also contribute to the literature explaining specific shopping contexts such as gift shopping (e.g., Belk 1979), shopping at flea markets (e.g., Sherry 1990b) and garage sales (Herrmann and Soiffer 1984), as well as shopping that falls into the category of everyday, mundane consumption behavior (Thompson *et al. 1990). It may also be useful in testing a taxonomy* of marketplace structure hypothesizing that exchange environments have both "economic and festive" implications (Sherry 1990a). High levels of utilitarian value, as measured by our scale, might explain why some unenjoyable shopping behaviors (described as "the dark side of shopping") are repeated. Conceivably, these behaviors are repeated because there is some job that "needs completing" or "accomplishing." This research could be tied in with previous work on shopping orientations (e.g., Bellenger et al. 1976; Darden and Reynolds 1971) to study different reactions among consumers in similar shopping contexts or exchange environments. That is, an account of both utilitarian and hedonic shopping value may help predict whether a consumer perceives a particular shopping experience as work, fun, or work that can also be fun. The modest positive correlation shown in this study tends to support the latter view for shopping in major retail malls.

Potential scale applications might help explain some apparently "irrational" consumer behaviors. For example, Rook (1987) expresses the need for models of the buying process capable of representing the hedonic complexity associated with impulse purchasing. Do consumers engage in impulse purchasing in an attempt to produce non-object-oriented hedonic value? Hedonic shopping value may be a key element of such a model.

Personal shopping value also seems relevant to the study of compulsive shoppers. These consumers carry out shopping activities in pursuit of hedonic fulfillment (O'Guinn and Faber 1989). Browsing without purchase intentions also defies explanation by traditional expectancy-value models. However, since it is hypothesized that activities of this type are often carried out for their

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the scale items were submitted to confirmatory factor analysis with the same hypothesized structure as before. Again, the factor loadings support the structure, with each item achieving a significant and substantial factor loading on the intended dimension. Further, the overall fit indices remain quite consistent with those achieved previously. The chi-square value resulting from this analysis is 287 ($df = 89$, $p < .001$), producing a GFI of .93, an RMSR of .06, and an NFI of .95. The correlation estimate between factors is modest at .25. Thus, it appears that the structure of the measurement model under conditions similar to those achieved in a mall-intercept setting remains consistent with the earlier data collection approaches.

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intrinsic pleasure, the hedonic value received may help explain this behavior.

Finally, the scale may be relevant for studying cultural influences on consumer behavior. In drawing the basic distinction between utilitarianism and hedonism in developing societies, Tse, Belk, and Zhou (1989) suggest that hedonic value is sought only by those in developed consumer societies. Thus, high levels of hedonic shopping value might be expected in the U.S. culture but be conspicuously absent in less developed countries. Will consumers in developing consumer societies increasingly seek out hedonic value in their shopping activities, or are cultural differences present that may moderate this relationship? Religiosity, for example, may influence the amount and type of shopping value sought by consumers (Hirschman 1984). We hope the scale can facilitate consumer researchers' investigation of these and other areas.

Conclusions and Future Research

Future research is needed to develop scales similar to the personal shopping value scale for other consumption contexts. While such scales should reflect both utilitarian and hedonic outcomes, the chance that this scale could be adapted easily to other consumption contexts is questionable. This may be particularly true for hedonic value, due to the large number of situational fluctuations associated with consumers' hedonic responses across consumption contexts (Holbrook and Hirschman 1982). Nonetheless, the approach and findings discussed here should prove useful to these endeavors.

Our scale suggests that expressions of pure enjoyment, excitement, captivation, escapism, and spontaneity are fundamental aspects of hedonic shopping value. In comparison, utilitarian shopping value includes expressions of accomplishment and/or disappointment over the ability (inability) to complete the shopping task. Taken together, shopping value appears to be provided by "the complete shopping experience," not simply by products shopped for (Schechter 1984; Zeithaml 1988, p. 13). Consistent with Holbrook's (1986) view, shopping value is subjective, characterized by consumers' interactions with an environment, and indicated by both the event's usefulness and an appreciation of its activities.

Although the scale exhibits construct and nomological validity, more work remains to refine our knowledge of hedonic and utilitarian shopping value. The items surviving empirical verification include explicitly many, but not all, potential conceptual elements. For example, an item specifying "work" as an element of utilitarian value is not included in the refined scale. Rather, this aspect is captured implicitly through expressions connoting "accomplishment" and task completion. A valuable work experience can be expressed similarly. Informational shopping is another potential utilitarian shopping element discussed earlier, but not incorporated explicitly in the final scale. Although several informational shopping items were included initially, they were dropped during the scale validation process (Churchill 1979; Gerbing and Anderson 1988). In retrospect, these informational items may not have applied to the large portion of consumers in the study who went shopping with specific purchase intentions. Thus, the magnitude of the correlations with the utilitarian factor may have been attenuated. However, a consumer pursuing information specifically could still express the shopping trip's value through accomplishment, finding what s/he needed, or completing the task. Likewise, fantasy was mentioned as an element of hedonic value. An item mentioning fantasy explicitly, however, survived all but final scale validation.

Future attempts at measuring hedonic and utilitarian value might include items intended to capture these aspects explicitly. Given a different situation (e.g., automobile shopping), these items may display the incremental improvement in empirical performance needed for retention. Thus, further research might help us understand these items' relation to utilitarian and hedonic shopping value more precisely. For this purpose, a more encompassing list of scale items (e.g., Table 1) may be appropriate.

Consistent with previous conceptualizations (Zeithaml 1988), the scale developed here represents value as a concept of relatively high abstraction. Benefits of this approach include corresponding measures that are parsimonious, pragmatic, and widely applicable. Future studies, however, could include multiple levels of abstraction in a single structural model. Gerbing, Ahadi, and Patton (1987) approach "impulsivity" in this manner. Their study suggests that global components of impulsivity consist of several related "molecular" components, each indicated by a unique set of items. This approach improves conceptualization as nearly all construct elements are represented explicitly. Its disadvantage is that the scale size becomes impractical for many potential applications. Nonetheless, a similar application might improve our knowledge of the value received from shopping.

By providing a more appropriate outcome measure for capturing shopping, these hedonic and utilitarian shopping value measures could prove very useful in increasing our understanding of this pervasive consumption experience. Further, related research could be of interest to all who study consumption through time. Recognizing that consumers spend multiple resources including time and wealth, the personal shopping value scale can help us address the question, "Was this experience more like work or fun?"

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